AI & SOCIETY (2026) 41:8641–8656
https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-026-03060-3

REVIEW

AI agent, take over?! Task delegation to agentic AI systems in the Philippines

Marc Hasselwander[1]

Received: 3 December 2025 / Accepted: 13 April 2026 / Published online: 23 May 2026
© The Author(s) 2026

Abstract

Agentic AI represents a fundamental shift from reactive AI systems (such as LLM-based chatbots) toward autonomous, goal-directed agents capable of decision-making, coordination, and task execution. This technological evolution is expected to reshape how individuals organize daily life, work, and information practices. At the same time, the rise of agentic AI raises important cultural, political, and ethical questions regarding human oversight and the redistribution of agency. This study provides early insights on how consumers anticipate delegating tasks to agentic AI and identifies heterogeneity in these expectations across user segments. Survey data from 407 experienced AI users in the Philippines were analyzed using latent class analysis (LCA) across 12 everyday and work-related activities. A four-class solution emerged, revealing segments of Creative Task Delegators (36.4%), Everyday Convenience Seekers (6.6%), Socially Oriented AI Agent Users (19.2%), and Web-Browsing Automators (37.9%). These distinct profiles illustrate differing orientations toward autonomy, trust, and cognitive offloading. The membership model highlights that age, socioeconomic status, social influence, and hedonic motivation are key factors shaping class membership, indicating that both socio-demographic characteristics and motivational orientations influence how individuals envision delegating tasks to autonomous AI agents. Overall, the findings of this study contribute to ongoing debates about responsible system design, governance, and the societal implications of increasing AI autonomy.

Keywords Agentic AI · AI Super Assistant (AISA) · Consumer behavior · Technology adoption · Human–AI interactions · Latent class analysis (LCA) · AIDUA model

1 Introduction

> "*AI agents will become the primary way we interact with computers in the future. They will be able to understand our needs and preferences, and proactively help us with tasks and decision making.*"
>
> – Satya Nadella, Microsoft, 2025.

The rapid development of artificial intelligence (AI) has transformed how people interact with technology (Sengar et al. 2025; Sharma and Paço, 2025). While generative AI tools such as LLM-based chatbots are widely used for conversational and task-oriented interactions such as drafting text or coding, a new shift is emerging toward agentic AI (Murugesan 2025). Unlike the mentioned systems that respond only to user commands, agentic AI works autonomously with minimal human intervention. It can plan, make decisions, learn, and act toward user-defined goals, making it a proactive, intelligent partner rather than a reactive tool (Candrian and Scherer 2022). These autonomous capabilities include processing information, sequencing multiple actions, and refining strategies over time, enabling the system to handle complex, multi-step tasks independently.

This evolution fundamentally changes how AI is used. Instead of simple interactions, users now transfer control to autonomous AI agents—also called AI super assistants (AISA)—to perform tasks, make decisions, or even collaborate in real time (Borghoff et al. 2025; Hasselwander et al. 2026; Sapkota et al. 2026). Agentic AI increasingly supports decision-making, automates processes, and adapts dynamically across sectors such as customer service, healthcare, finance, and everyday life (Murugesan 2025). These opportunities raise questions about whether—and which tasks users are willing to entrust to autonomous AI agents.

✉ Marc Hasselwander
hasselwander@tu-berlin.de

[1] Technical University of Berlin, Berlin, Germany

Although agentic AI is a recent development, the delegation of tasks to computers and artificial agents has been a longstanding topic in the information systems (IS) and human–computer interaction literatures. Early work conceptualized software agents explicitly through a delegation lens, emphasizing the transfer of authority and responsibility from human users to autonomous systems (Milewski and Lewis 1997). Delegation has been formally defined as the transfer of responsibility for actions or outcomes between agents (Norman and Reed 2010), emphasizing that it inherently involves questions of control and trust (Komiak and Benbasat 2006). More recently, research has shifted toward delegation to more autonomous AI systems, including AI-powered voice assistants, LLM-based conversational agents, and embodied or wearable AI assistants (Adam et al. 2024; Frank et al. 2024). Within these contexts, scholars have examined delegation across specific activities such as online shopping, information search, and decision support (Jo 2022; Mari et al. 2024; Wu et al. 2026). This body of work demonstrates that delegation to AI is a well-established and theoretically grounded construct. However, with the rise of agentic AI systems capable of autonomous, multimodal, and goal-directed task execution, these delegation dynamics become even more consequential.

Given its very recent technological emergence, agentic AI has only begun to attract scholarly attention, and most existing contributions remain conceptual or theoretical (e.g., Murugesan 2025; Sengar et al. 2025). Empirical evidence on how consumers may interact with and delegate tasks to autonomous AI agents therefore remains scarce, particularly at the population level and across distinct consumer segments. This lack of empirical insight is problematic because delegation to autonomous systems entails varying levels of control transfer, trust, and perceived risk, which are unlikely to be uniform across users. Moreover, culturally and technologically dynamic regions such as Southeast Asia remain underrepresented in the current literature. Although recent work has shown that Filipino users express strong interest in agentic AI technologies (Hasselwander et al. 2026), little is known about what types of tasks they would delegate and how such preferences differ across consumer groups. The present study addresses this gap by empirically examining task delegation preferences within the Philippine context and by identifying distinct consumer segments based on these preferences. We further explore which socio-demographic characteristics and latent technology perceptions help explain class membership. More specifically, we address the following research questions:

RQ1: Which latent consumer segments can be identified based on delegation preferences toward AI agents?

RQ2: To what extent do socio-demographic characteristics and latent technology perceptions predict membership in these segments?

This study makes three key contributions. First, it advances research on AI delegation by providing population-level empirical evidence on task delegation preferences toward agentic AI systems. By identifying distinct latent consumer segments, we show that delegation intentions are systematically heterogeneous rather than uniform across users. Second, we link socio-demographic characteristics and latent technology perceptions to segment membership, thereby enriching theoretical understanding of individual differences in human–AI delegation. Third, although conducted in the Philippines, the findings offer insights that extend beyond the focal context by informing broader debates on autonomy transfer, trust, and task offloading in the era of agentic AI.

2 Literature review

2.1 Previous studies on AI segmentation

While the adoption and acceptance of AI have been extensively studied across different literatures and contexts (e.g., Cubric 2020; Heimberger et al. 2024; Madan and Ashok 2023), attempts to segment AI users remain highly limited (Table 1). Notably, most of the identified studies were published in 2025, indicating that this is an emerging yet rapidly expanding domain. Existing work spans diverse application areas including customer service (Rajaobelina and Ricard 2021), healthcare (Wang et al. 2022), transportation (Qian et al. 2025), workplace technologies (Daniilidou and Antoniadou 2025), financial advice (Bennetts and Ludwig 2025), and education (Stojanov et al. 2024). Methodologically, the field is dominated by model-based segmentation approaches, particularly Latent Class Analysis (LCA) and Latent Profile Analysis (LPA), which are used in the majority of studies. Segmentation solutions across these studies typically range between three and five classes, balancing statistical rigor with meaningful behavioral differentiation. Substantively, segmentation has focused on adoption readiness, domain-specific knowledge, AI competencies, trust, and usage intensity.

However, to the best of our knowledge, existing AI segmentation research has exclusively examined user responses to generative AI and domain-specific AI systems, while no prior study has focused on the context of emerging agentic AI systems capable of autonomous action. The present study complements the existing literature by providing the first behavioral segmentation of consumers' task delegation preferences for agentic AI.

Table 1 Overview of AI segmentation studies

Study	Context / AI technology	*N*	Methods	Identified segments
Rajaobelina and Ricard 2021	Adoption of AI chatbots (and live chat)	342	Two-step cluster analysis	1) Women divided interest (24.9%) 2) Men partially interested (21.9%) 3) Age 35–44 partially interested (19.3%) 4) Older disinterested (33.9%)
Wang et al. 2022	AI in medical diagnostics	328	LPA	1) Low knowledge of medical AI (28.0%) 2) Moderate knowledge of medical AI (58.2%) 3) High knowledge of medical AI (13.7%)
Qian et al. 2025	AI in transportation planning	354	LCA	1) AI Neutral (51.4%) 2) AI Optimist (25.5%) 3) AI Pessimist (13.7%) 4) AI Skeptic (9.5%)
Cabrera-Sánchez et al. 2021	Adoption of AI apps	740	PLS-POS	1) Players (3.8%) 2) Home end users (28.5%) 3) Reluctant (21.1%) 4) Professional end users (35.4%) 5) Skeptical users (11.1%)
Wang et al. 2025	AI-related competencies of users	1088	LCA	1) Average users (43.9%) 2) Expert advocates (24.7%) 3) Expert skeptics (15.2%) 4) Unskilled skeptics (9.3%) 5) Neutral unskilled (6.8%)
Bennetts and Ludwig 2025	AI advice for retirement plans	2000	LCA	1) AI-Integrated Consumers (18.9%) 2) Employer-Driven AI Users (27.7%) 3) Traditionalists (9.1%) 4) Sceptical Adopters (13.5%) 5) AI-Comfortable Minimalists (30.8%)
Daniilidou and Antoniadou 2025	Acceptance of AI in workplaces	878	LPA, LCA	1) Aspiring Women in Health and Society Fields (18.0%) 2) Educated Young Tech Workers (10.8%) 3) Veteran Public Workers (27.0%) 4) Experienced Public Professionals in Social Fields (13.6%) 5) Seniors in Businessand Freelance (30.6)
Chang et al. 2025	Acceptance of ChatGPT	303	LCA	1) Students with weak AI digital ability (28.0%) 2) Students with strong AI digital ability (72.0%)
Stojanov et al. 2024	Self-reported reliance on ChatGPT for learning	490	LPA	1) Versatile low reliers (38.2%) 2) All-rounders (10.4%) 3) Knowledge seekers (16.5%) 4) Proactive learners (11.8%) 5) Assignment delegators (23.1%)
Gerling et al. 2026	ChatGPT early adopters	344	*k*-means cluster analysis	1) AI Enthusiasts (25.6%) 2) Naïve Pragmatists (20.6%) 3) Cautious Adopters (35.5%) 4) Reserved Explorers (18.3%)
This study	Agentic AI task delegation	407	LCA	1) Creative Task Delegators (36.4%) 2) Everyday Convenience Seekers (6.6%) 3) Socially Oriented AI Agent Users (19.2%) 4) Web-Browsing Automators (37.9%)

LCA latent class analysis, *LPA* latent profile analysis, *PLS-POS* partial least squares prediction-oriented segmentation

2.2 Theoretical background

Delegating tasks to agentic AI systems represents a qualitatively different form of technology use compared to traditional human–computer interactions (Hasselwander et al. 2026; Koenig 2025; Pathak and Bansal 2024). Rather than performing isolated queries or commands, users transfer partial agency to an intelligent system, allowing it to execute tasks independently, make decisions, or coordinate actions on their behalf (Acharya et al. 2025). In the context of AI systems that take over tasks previously performed by humans, prior work suggests that adoption intentions are shaped by users' underlying perceptions, motivations, and beliefs about AI capabilities (e.g., Gursoy et al. 2019; Ma and Huo 2023). To capture these drivers, models such as the AIDUA framework have been developed (Gursoy et al.

2019). This AI-specific acceptance model integrates affective, cognitive, and social determinants of adoption and explicitly accounts for emotional reactions and anthropomorphic perceptions that traditional acceptance models often overlook. The AIDUA model has since been applied and extended in various AI contexts, including generative AI chatbots (Ma and Huo 2023), AI super assistants (Hasselwander et al. 2026), and broader AI generated content applications (Bai and Yang 2025). These extensions underline the flexibility of AIDUA in capturing the multidimensional and evolving nature of AI acceptance, particularly in contexts where autonomy, transparency, and perceived risk play a central role.

2.3 Hypotheses development

2.3.1 Consumer delegation to AI agents

Building on the AIDUA framework, delegation to agentic AI can be conceptualized as a higher-order form of AI adoption that involves the transfer of decision authority and task execution to an autonomous system. Because delegation entails autonomy transfer and perceived risk, it is likely shaped by users' underlying cognitive, affective, and social technology perceptions.

Several latent constructs from the AIDUA model are particularly relevant, as evidenced by previous studies (e.g., Bai and Yang 2025; Espinoza-Bravo et al. 2025; Gursoy et al. 2019; Hasselwander et al. 2026, Ma and Huo 2023). First, hedonic motivation reflects the enjoyment users derive from interacting with AI systems (Noerman et al. 2025). Second, novelty value captures curiosity and interest in emerging technologies including agentic or assistant-like AI tools (Jo 2025). Third, perceived humanness represents the extent to which AI is seen as human-like in communication or behavior (Ma and Huo 2023; Song and Lin 2024). Fourth, social influence further shapes expectations of how others view or endorse AI use, which is particularly relevant in collectivist cultural contexts such as the Philippines (Datu et al. 2018). Finally, performance expectancy and effort expectancy represent beliefs about the usefulness and ease of interacting with AI tools (Gursoy et al. 2019; Ma and Huo 2023). Together, these latent technology perceptions can meaningfully affect whether consumers feel comfortable transferring control to an AI agent, and which types of tasks they choose to delegate.

Based on these insights from the literature, we forward the following hypothesis.

H1: Latent technology perceptions contribute to the formation of distinct AI-delegation segments.

2.3.2 Explaining heterogeneity in delegation preferences

Research on human-AI interaction highlights that delegating tasks to autonomous systems is not a purely functional choice but is shaped by individual differences in values, motivations, and social roles (Adam et al. 2024; Gursoy et al. 2019; Komiak and Benbasat 2006). Rather than treating delegation as a uniform behavior, recent work shows that people vary in how willing they are to transfer agency to AI based on perceived autonomy, control, and psychological comfort (Oh et al. 2025). Delegation involves a redistribution of decision authority, which triggers concerns about agency and responsibility (Sengul et al. 2012). These concerns are more pronounced in complex or personally relevant tasks, and users differ widely in how much autonomy they are willing to grant to autonomous systems (Dang and Liu 2025).

Socio-demographic characteristics provide important explanatory insights for this heterogeneity (Vasiliu and Yavetz 2024). For instance, gender differences have been observed in perceived emotional comfort and willingness to delegate tasks and decision-making (Akinola et al. 2018). Age has been linked to variation in trust and perceived utility of autonomous systems (Adam et al. 2024). Moreover, socioeconomic status has been shown to influence the adoption of AI technologies in service contexts, as individuals with fewer resources may face higher barriers to experimentation and adoption (Hermann et al. 2024). Taken together, these insights imply that socio-demographic characteristics help explain who ends up in which delegation segment as agentic AI becomes increasingly available.

H2: Socio-demographic characteristics contribute to the formation of distinct AI-delegation segments.

3 Data and methods

3.1 The Philippine context

The Philippines is widely recognized as one of the most digitally engaged societies in Southeast Asia, with exceptionally high social media usage, strong internet connectivity, and a high level of openness toward emerging digital services (Uy-Tioco 2019). Digital interactions are predominantly mobile-based, and recent studies show that Filipino consumers frequently prefer to book, purchase, and pay for services through smartphones (Hasselwander et al. 2022). Research suggests that Filipino users demonstrate comparatively high technology acceptance when applications are perceived as useful, socially endorsed, and easy to integrate into daily routines (De Witte et al. 2024).

Building on this digital readiness, the Philippines is increasingly viewed as one of the most promising emerging

AI markets. A World Bank report acknowledges the country's young, tech-savvy population and high mobile engagement as key drivers of AI adoption (Liu and Wang 2024). Recent evidence shows growing use of conversational and generative AI tools in education, customer service, and daily life (Concepcion et al. 2019). These developments are further supported by governmental strategies and national policy initiatives that actively promote AI adoption and governance, including incentives for local innovation, AI start-up support, and the integration of AI into national development plans (ibid).

3.2 Survey design and measures

The survey instrument was developed to examine consumer responses to agentic AI systems in the Philippines. Participants were first informed about the purpose and structure of the survey. Given that fully autonomous agentic AI systems were still largely unfamiliar to the broader public at the time of data collection in July 2025, the study targeted individuals with prior experience using generative AI tools such as ChatGPT, Gemini, or DeepSeek. These users represent the most plausible early adopters of next-generation agentic AI technologies, as they are already familiar with AI-based interaction and task support. To ensure eligibility, participants completed a screening question confirming their previous use of AI tools and briefly describing their experience in their own words. None of the responses indicated active use of autonomous AI agents, confirming that respondents were experienced AI users but—at the time of the survey—not yet regular users of fully agentic systems.

Following the eligibility check, respondents answered several socio-demographic questions. They were then provided with a detailed explanation of agentic AI technologies to establish a shared understanding of their capabilities, particularly with regard to autonomous task execution.

The list of tasks used to measure delegation preferences was constructed through a comprehensive review of academic literature (Table 2) and relevant gray literature including industry reports and strategy documents. This process resulted in a final list of twelve tasks spanning routine, productivity-related, creative, and information-intensive activities. From this list, which was presented in randomized order, respondents had to select up to three tasks they would likely delegate to an AI agent (Fig. 1). An additional "other" option was available and selected by three respondents. However, the responses provided under this category corresponded to tasks already included in the predefined list and were therefore recoded accordingly. For example, one respondent referred to writing articles, which was recoded as "Creating or editing documents and presentations". This indicates that the original task set adequately captured the most relevant domains in which AI agents are perceived as applicable.

A measure of respondents' adoption stage toward using AI agents was also included. Based on the self-regulated behavioral change stage model (Bamberg 2013), participants indicated whether they had not considered the technology, were beginning to think about its relevance, were actively evaluating its benefits and risks, or had already decided to adopt or reject it.

Finally, questions on latent constructs captured respondents' technology perceptions and motivational adoption factors of AI agents. The included constructs, measured with established multi-item scales from Gursoy et al. (2019) and Ma and Huo (2023), were social influence (4 items; $\alpha = 0.886$), hedonic motivation (3 items; $\alpha = 0.949$), novelty value (4 items; $\alpha = 0.881$), perceived humanness (4 items; $\alpha = 0.911$), performance expectancy (4 items; $\alpha = 0.909$), and effort expectancy (4 items; $\alpha = 0.862$).

Given that all variables were collected through a single online survey, common method bias (CMB) may arise due to the reliance on self-reported data. Several procedural remedies were implemented to mitigate this risk (Podsakoff et al. 2003). Respondents were assured of anonymity to reduce social desirability effects. In addition, delegation indicators and perceptual constructs were presented in separate sections using different question formats, and the questionnaire was intentionally kept concise to minimize fatigue effects.

To statistically assess CMB, Harman's single-factor test was conducted. The first unrotated factor accounted for 49% of the total variance, remaining below the commonly suggested 50% threshold. Furthermore, the single-factor solution exhibited very poor model fit (RMSEA = 0.39; TLI = 0.18), indicating that the data are not adequately represented by a single underlying factor. These results suggest that CMB is unlikely to substantially affect the findings.

3.3 Participants

Data were collected in July 2025 using an online survey administered through a professional panel provider. The use of an online panel enabled cost-efficient data collection and remote access to respondents across the country, which would not have been feasible through on-site recruitment due to logistical constraints. Given the study's focus on experienced GenAI users, the online mode does not pose typical concerns related to digital exclusion, as digital access and literacy are inherent characteristics of the target population. A quota sampling approach was applied based on the most recent Philippine census distributions for age and gender to ensure a demographically balanced and broadly representative sample.

After removing invalid responses based on attention checks and data-quality screening, a total of 407 valid

Table 2 Literature review of delegation tasks to agentic AI systems

Task	Description	Supporting literature
Researching information online	This task involves autonomously searching, filtering, and synthesizing information from multiple online sources. The AI agent identifies relevant content, reduces irrelevant or redundant information, and presents structured results tailored to the user's query and context	Hasselwander and Lah 2026; Hasselwander et al. 2026; Sapkota et al. 2026
Translating texts or conversations	Translating involves converting spoken or written content from one language to another while preserving meaning and grammatical correctness. The AI agent autonomously maps linguistic structures across languages, resolves ambiguities where possible, and generates context-appropriate output in the target language	Chen 2023; Guzman and Lewis 2019; Levine et al. 2024
Helping with school or work-related tasks	In school or work context, the AI agent can support cognitive and productive activities such as drafting, summarizing, explaining concepts, or structuring problem-solving processes. It adapts outputs to task requirements and user needs	Kostopoulos et al. 2025; Yin et al. 2024
Creating or editing documents and presentations	This task involves autonomously generating, structuring, and refining written or visual content in line with specified goals. The AI agent independently develops ideas, organizes material, adapts style, and revises drafts, assuming substantial responsibility for content creation and iterative improvement	Guzman and Lewis 2019; Levine et al. 2024
Managing calendar and reminders	This task centers on organizing time-sensitive commitments by tracking events, setting reminders, and prioritizing activities. The AI agent monitors deadlines and proactively prompts users to prevent conflicts or missed obligations	Jo 2022; Sun et al. 2022; Sapkota et al. 2026
Answering or drafting emails and messages	Here, the AI agent formulates context-appropriate responses across interpersonal or professional communication settings. It adapts tone, structure, and level of formality to the situation, assisting users in articulating messages efficiently while maintaining alignment with relational and situational norms	Guzman and Lewis 2019; Levine et al. 2024; Sapkota et al. 2026
Managing smart home devices	This task involves monitoring and controlling connected household systems such as lighting, heating, appliances, and security devices based on user preferences, environmental data, and real-time conditions. The AI agent adjusts settings proactively to enhance comfort, efficiency, and safety	Sapkota et al. 2026; Zaidan and Zaidan 2018
Scheduling appointments (e.g. meetings, doctor visits)	Scheduling involves coordinating availability, negotiating time slots, and confirming bookings across parties or platforms. The AI agent handles constraints and updates autonomously, streamlining multi-step coordination processes with minimal user intervention	Jo 2022; Sun et al. 2022
Recommending or managing investments	An AI agent can independently evaluate market conditions and manage investments according to the user's predefined objectives. It allocates capital based on risk preferences, tracks performance in real time, and dynamically rebalances the portfolio as conditions change	Akhtar et al. 2025; Chua et al. 2023; Ismagilova and Ploner 2025
Planning travel (e.g. booking flights, hotels, itineraries)	Travel planning involves autonomously organizing and coordinating trips through an agentic AI system. This includes researching destinations, comparing options, creating structured itineraries, and dynamically adapting plans based on user preferences and constraints	Mladenović et al. 2026; Seyfi et al. 2025
Daily commute planning	This task involves autonomously organizing and optimizing recurring commute trips. For example, the AI agent can select efficient routes and transport modes based on real-time traffic conditions, while dynamically adapting to disruptions such as delays or congestion	Dorostkar et al. 2026

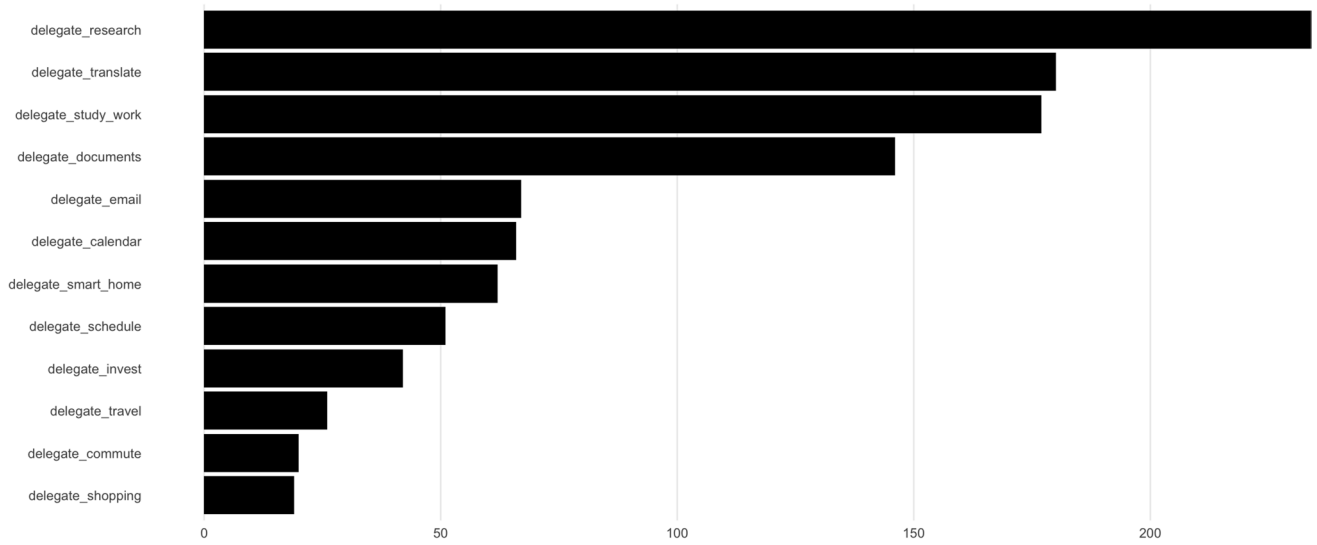


Fig. 1 Delegation frequencies across all task types

responses were collected (Table 3). The quota-controlled variables reflected census distributions closely (48.2% female; 49.5% aged between 18 and 34). Most participants identified as middle or lower-middle class. Around two-thirds were employed full-time, part-time, or self-employed. Note that the high share of respondents with a university degree (73.3%) likely reflects the profile of experienced AI users rather than the general population. Although no official data exist on the educational background of AI users in the country, national statistics show that 68.2% of laptop users hold a university degree (Philippine Statistics Authority (PSA) 2025). Given that agentic AI use requires access to digital devices and advanced digital literacy, a higher proportion of university-educated users is plausible and consistent with technology-intensive usage patterns.

With 407 valid observations, the sample size exceeds commonly recommended thresholds for latent class analysis and mixture modeling, which typically suggest a minimum of approximately 300 cases for stable class estimation (Weller et al. 2020). Moreover, the use of census-based quotas for age and gender enhances demographic alignment with the target population. While the sample does not claim strict probabilistic representativeness, its size and quota design provide a robust basis for segmentation analysis and population-level inference within the defined sampling frame.

3.4 Data analysis

We use latent class analysis (LCA) to identify distinct segments of consumers based on their reported willingness to delegate different tasks to an AI agent. LCA is well suited for uncovering unobserved heterogeneity in behavioral intentions and has been widely applied in consumer segmentation studies (Ding et al. 2020). Conceptually, LCA groups individuals into latent subpopulations by estimating the probability that respondents with similar response patterns belong to the same underlying class (Collins and Lanza 2013). Rather than estimating the measurement and membership components sequentially, we employed a one-step estimation approach in which class formation and the effects of covariates are estimated simultaneously within a single model. The joint estimation consists of (i) a measurement model that identifies the latent classes based on the delegation indicators and (ii) a membership model that explains class membership as a function of socio-demographic variables and latent technology perceptions (Fig. 2). The advantage of this one-step solution is that covariates are incorporated directly into the class formation process, allowing the estimation to account for classification uncertainty and avoiding potential bias that may arise in sequential (three-step) procedures.

In this study, task-delegation variables were modeled as binary indicators (0 = would not delegate, 1 = would delegate). Regarding the covariates, age was modeled as a continuous variable to capture linear life-cycle effects on class membership. Socioeconomic status (SES) was likewise treated as a numeric variable reflecting its ordered structure. Modeling SES as continuous improves estimation stability and avoids sparse-category issues, as the highest SES category contained only one observation. The remaining sociodemographic covariates were included as binary variables (i.e., gender, education, employment status). The latent technology perception

Table 3 Descriptive characteristics of the sample ($N = 407$)

Variables	Categories	Census in %	Observations (%)
Gender	Female	49.2	196 (48.1)
	Male	50.8	211 (51.8)
Age	18–24	21.6	95 (23.3)
	25–34	27.2	109 (26.8)
	35–44	21.6	89 (21.9)
	45–54	16.9	75 (18.4)
	55–65	12.7	39 (9.6)
Socioeconomic status	Lower class	–	52 (12.8)
	Lower middle class	–	158 (38.5)
	Middle class	–	179 (44.0)
	Upper middle class	–	16 (3.9)
	Upper class	–	2 (0.5)
Highest level of education	Currently in school	–	36 (8.8)
	No grade completed	–	0 (0)
	Elementary	–	3 (0.7)
	High School	–	50 (12.3)
	Bachelor's degree	–	299 (73.5)
	Master's/PhD degree	–	19 (4.7)
Employment status	Student	–	50 (12.3)
	Employed full-time	–	207 (50.9)
	Employed part-time	–	35 (8.6)
	Self-employed	–	67 (16.5)
	Unemployed	–	22 (5.4)
	Homemaker	–	17 (4.2)
	Retired	–	7 (1.7)
	Other	–	2 (0.5)

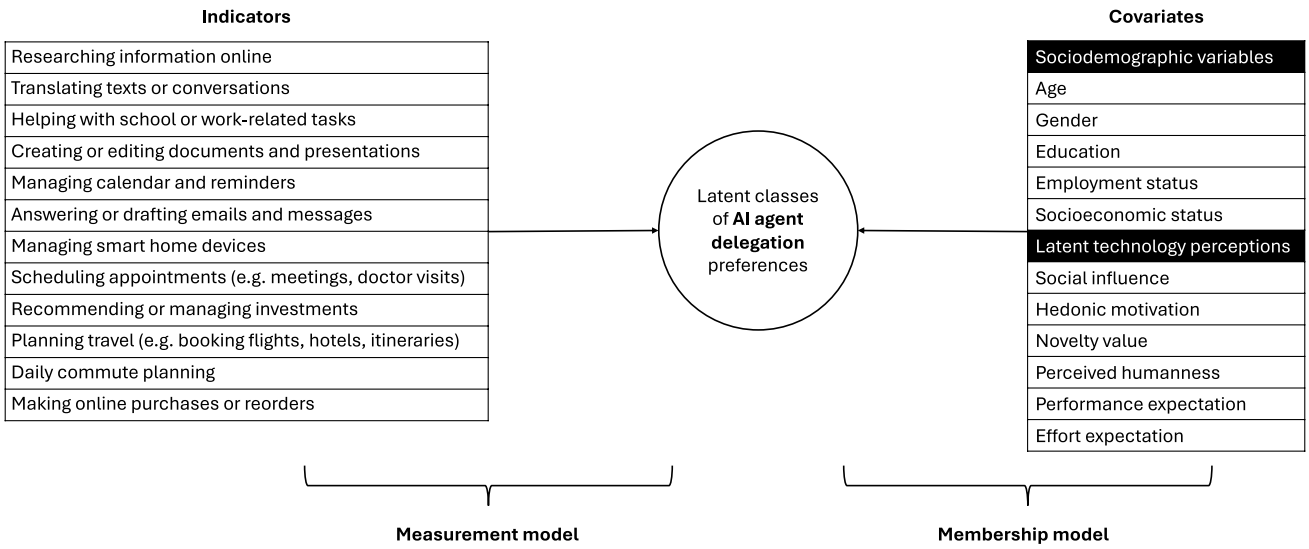


Fig. 2 Conceptual framework of agentic AI task delegation preferences

constructs were incorporated as covariates using composite mean scores calculated from their respective multi-item Likert scales.

All analyses were conducted in R, using the poLCA package for model estimation.

4 Results

To determine the optimal number of latent classes, different models were estimated and compared using standard fit indices (Table 4). The two-class model yielded the lowest BIC, indicating a parsimonious solution, but provided only limited differentiation between delegation patterns. The three-class model improved the log-likelihood compared to the two-class solution, yet resulted in a small segment (5.40%) and did not provide substantively clearer differentiation. The four-class solution substantially improved the log-likelihood and achieved the lowest AIC ($AIC_3 = 4355.869$), while yielding theoretically meaningful and well-differentiated profiles with acceptable class sizes (smallest class = 6.14%). Entropy remained at a high level (0.97), exceeding the commonly recommended threshold of 0.80 for adequate classification precision. In contrast, the five-class solution resulted in a very small segment (2.21%) and perfect entropy, indicating overfitting and deterministic classification likely driven by the covariates in the one-step specification. Estimating additional classes was therefore not pursued, as further fragmentation and increased computational complexity were expected without substantive benefit. Based on overall model fit, stability, and interpretability, the four-class solution was therefore retained for further analysis.

Table 5 presents the conditional item-response probabilities for each task across the four latent classes. For additional visualization, the class-specific delegation profiles are displayed as radar diagrams in the Appendix (Fig. 3).

The four classes exhibit clearly differentiated delegation patterns. While Class 1 shows a pronounced concentration on content-creation tasks, Class 2 displays higher probabilities for routine and transactional activities. Class 3 is characterized by comparatively higher probabilities for language- and assistance-related tasks, whereas Class 4 demonstrates high delegation preferences for information search alongside moderate engagement across several other domains.

Table 6 summarizes the effects of socio-demographic and latent technology perception variables on class membership relative to the reference class (Class 1).

Several variables significantly predicted the likelihood of belonging to specific classes. Age showed a significant negative effect on membership in Class 3 (OR = 0.63, $p < 0.001$), indicating that younger respondents were more likely to belong to this segment compared to the reference class. In addition, social influence significantly increased the likelihood of belonging to Class 3 (OR = 1.65, $p < 0.01$), suggesting that perceived social expectations play a role in shaping delegation preferences within this group.

For Class 4, employment status (OR = 0.46, $p < 0.01$) negatively predicted membership, implying that respondents in active employment were less likely to belong to this segment relative to the reference class. In contrast, socioeconomic status had a positive and significant effect (OR = 1.43, $p < 0.01$), indicating that individuals with higher socioeconomic standing were more likely to be classified in this group.

Table 4 Model fit indices for latent class models

No. of classes	Log-likelihood	AIC	BIC	Entropy	Smallest class (%)
2	−2167.447	4406.895	4551.212	1	36.36
3	−2124.921	4369.842	4610.37	0.9663291	5.40
4	−2093.935	4355.869	4692.61	0.967139	6.14
5	−2185.064	4626.128	5139.256	1	2.21

Table 5 Task delegation probabilities across the four latent classes

Task	Class 1 (36.36%)	Class 2 (6.55%)	Class 3 (19.17%)	Class 4 (37.92%)
Researching information online	0.6014	0.0631	0.0000	**1.0000**
Translating texts or conversations	0.3716	0.2038	**0.5624**	0.5164
Helping with school or work-related tasks	0.4054	0.2390	**0.6524**	0.4195
Creating or editing documents and presentations	**1.0000**	0.0000	0.0000	0.0000
Managing calendar and reminders	0.0608	0.2107	**0.2753**	0.2391
Answering or drafting emails and messages	0.1284	0.0835	**0.2794**	0.1683
Managing smart home devices	0.1419	**0.3172**	0.1743	0.1487
Scheduling appointments (e.g. meetings, doctor visits)	0.0743	0.1799	**0.3237**	0.0839
Recommending or managing investments	0.0676	**0.3041**	0.1409	0.1160
Planning travel (e.g. booking flights, hotels, itineraries)	0.0338	**0.2778**	0.0466	0.0645
Daily commute planning	0.0000	**0.6576**	0.0076	0.0316
Making online purchases or reorders	0.0068	**0.3560**	0.0611	0.0307

The highest value for each indicator is highlighted in bold

Table 6 Predictors of class membership (reference = Class 1)

Task	Class 2	Class 3	Class 4
Intercept	0.0001	29.17***	4.75*
Sociodemographic variables			
Gender (ref. = male)	0.77	1.23	1.03
Age	0.83	0.63***	1.02
Education (ref. = no university degree)	0.21	0.81	0.86
Employment status (ref. = not in active employment)	2.61	0.81	0.46**
Socioeconomic status	2.00	1.04	1.43**
Latent technology perceptions			
Social influence	1.52	1.65**	1.24
Hedonic motivation	0.11**	0.65	0.65
Novelty value	5.73	0.62	0.78
Perceived humanness	2.12	0.75	0.85
Performance expectation	2.48	0.79	0.94
Effort expectation	1.10	1.31	1.34

Note: Odds ratios (OR = exp(β)) are reported. Values above 1 indicate higher odds of membership in the respective class compared to the reference class (Class 1), while values below 1 indicate lower odds

*$p < 0.10$, **$p < 0.05$, ***$p < 0.01$

Class 2 differed from the reference class primarily in terms of hedonic motivation, which showed a significant negative effect (OR = 0.11, $p < 0.01$). This suggests that individuals with lower enjoyment-driven motivations toward technology were comparatively more likely to belong to this segment. No other socio-demographic or perception variables reached statistical significance for Class 2.

Overall, the results support both hypotheses. The latent class and membership model results indicate that several latent technology perceptions (e.g., social influence and hedonic motivation) significantly differentiate between segments, supporting H1. Likewise, socio-demographic characteristics, particularly age and socioeconomic status, significantly predict class membership, providing support for H2.

Building on the distinct task delegation profiles (Table 5) and the class-specific predictors of membership (Table 6), the four latent classes were labeled as *Creative Task Delegators*, *Everyday Convenience Seekers*, *Socially Oriented AI Agent Users*, and *Web-Browsing Automators*. The labels reflect both the dominant domains of AI agent delegation and the underlying socio-demographic and perceptual characteristics that differentiate the segments.

Class 1–Creative task delegators (36.4%): This segment is characterized by a strong concentration on content-related delegation. Members show an exceptionally high probability of delegating the creation or editing of documents and presentations (1.00), alongside comparatively high likelihoods of researching information online (0.60) and receiving school or work-related support (0.41). Routine coordination and transactional tasks such as commute planning (0.00), scheduling (0.07), or online purchases (0.01) play only a minor role. As the reference class in the multinomial model, this group serves as the baseline against which the other segments are compared. Their profile suggests that agentic AI is primarily used as a creative and cognitive co-producer rather than as a convenience or automation tool.

Class 2—Everyday convenience seekers (6.6%): This comparatively small segment displays a clear preference for delegating routine, transactional, and mobility-related tasks. They show the highest probabilities for daily commute planning (0.66), online purchases or reorders (0.36), smart home management (0.32), and investment management (0.30), while content creation (0.00) and information search (0.06) remain marginal. The membership model indicates that lower hedonic motivation significantly increases the likelihood of belonging to this class (OR = 0.11, $p < 0.01$). This suggests that delegation in this segment is less driven by enjoyment or intrinsic interest in technology and more by functional efficiency considerations. Their use of agentic AI appears pragmatic and utility-oriented.

Class 3–Socially oriented AI agent users (19%): Members of this segment exhibit high probabilities for delegating translation (0.56) and school or work-related support (0.65), alongside comparatively strong engagement in communication-related tasks such as drafting emails (0.28) and scheduling appointments (0.32). Content creation, in contrast, is not central (0.00). The delegation profile indicates a pronounced focus on language-based, interactional, and communicative support functions. The multinomial results further substantiate this interpretation. Younger respondents are significantly more likely to belong to this class (OR = 0.63, $p < 0.001$), and social influence positively predicts membership (OR = 1.65, $p < 0.01$). This suggests that delegation in this segment is embedded in socially shaped usage contexts, where normative expectations and peer environments play a meaningful role. Taken together, Class 3 appears to rely on AI agents primarily as a socially embedded communication and coordination partner, rather than as a tool for pure information retrieval or routine automation.

Class 4–Web-browsing automators (38%): This largest segment is defined by an exceptionally high probability of delegating online information search (1.00), clearly distinguishing it from all other classes. Translation (0.52), school/work-related support (0.42), and calendar management (0.24) are moderately represented, while commute planning (0.03) and online purchasing (0.03) remain negligible. The membership model shows that individuals in active employment are less likely to belong to this class (OR = 0.46, $p < 0.01$), whereas higher socioeconomic status significantly increases the likelihood of membership (OR = 1.43, $p < 0.01$). This pattern suggests that this segment consists of comparatively resource-strong individuals who rely on agentic AI primarily for cognitively demanding,

information-intensive tasks. Overall, this class appears to use agentic AI as a structured substitute for traditional web browsing, delegating search, filtering, and synthesis of information rather than everyday logistical or transactional tasks.

5 Discussion and conclusion

5.1 General discussion

This study provides empirical insights into the types of tasks consumers are willing to delegate to autonomous AI agents. The results show that users selectively transfer responsibility to AI, with a strong preference for cognitively oriented tasks such as researching information, translation, and study/work-related support. These tasks reflect functions where users perceive clear informational benefits and low personal risk. Creative activities like creating or editing documents and presentations also received substantial delegation intentions, suggesting that users also increasingly view AI agents as collaborative partners in knowledge production and content creation. In contrast, delegation intentions were lower for activities involving financial decision-making, personal communication, and scheduling, which points to greater reluctance to transfer control where trust, privacy, or responsibility are more sensitive (Frank et al. 2024). These observed patterns highlight that consumers do not delegate broadly, but differentiate between task domains based on perceived complexity, risk, and personal relevance (Adam et al. 2024).

Building on these findings, the segmentation results reveal that consumers do not delegate tasks in isolation but rather in coherent patterns, reflecting distinct strategic orientations toward agentic AI. The four identified segments are 1) Creative Task Delegators, 2) Everyday Convenience Seekers, 3) Socially Oriented AI Agent Users, and 4) Web-Browsing Automators. These segments demonstrate that delegation preferences are embedded in broader behavioral tendencies, similar to prior AI segmentation studies that distinguish convenience-/efficiency-oriented users from more cognitively driven or expertise-driven segments (e.g., Cabrera-Sánchez et al. 2021; Bennetts and Ludwig, 2024; Stojanov et al. 2024).

Creative Task Delegators rely heavily on AI agents for content creation, document production, and information support, positioning AI as a creative and cognitive co-worker rather than a convenience assistant. Everyday Convenience Seekers mainly rely on AI for low-effort, routine activities such as travel planning, online shopping, and smart home control, which parallels earlier work on convenience-driven service users and super app adoption, where transactional and everyday tasks dominate usage (Hasselwander and Weiss 2025). Socially Oriented AI Agent Users concentrate on language- and communication-based activities, including translation, messaging, and coordination tasks, suggesting that their delegation behavior is shaped by perceived social presence and relational dynamics in human–AI interaction (Ngo 2025). Finally, Web-Browsing Automators demonstrate a high willingness to delegate information-heavy tasks, particularly research, translation, and structured cognitive coordination, using AI primarily to replace manual search, filtering, and synthesis processes. This pattern aligns with recent findings from young adults in Germany, showing that users increasingly employ AI agents as a "new kind of Google" (Hasselwander and Lah 2026). Taken together, these profiles illustrate that agentic AI delegation is strongly shaped by perceptions of task value and perceived benefits of cognitive offloading, with clear differentiation between convenience, productivity, creativity, and information-intensive usage orientations.

5.2 Implications

The findings of this study offer several implications for the societal integration of agentic AI, particularly in relation to cultural norms, power relations, and responsible system governance. First, the segmentation results indicate that consumers are not passive recipients of AI technologies. Instead, they actively decide which types of agency they are willing to transfer to AI systems. This selective delegation points to emerging shifts in how responsibility, efficiency, and digital competence are perceived within society. As certain tasks—especially research, organization, and creative work—are increasingly assigned to AI agents, new expectations may develop regarding human capabilities, productivity, and collaboration with autonomous systems. This aligns with recent evidence that AI technologies can significantly reshape productivity patterns and skill requirements, reinforcing the idea that human–AI collaboration is becoming a core component, especially in future work structures (Brynjolfsson et al. 2025).

Second, the results reveal potential inequalities in how different user groups may benefit from agentic AI. Web-Browsing Automators and Creative Task Delegators are positioned to gain substantial cognitive augmentation, while other segments mainly use AI for routine and convenience purposes. This suggests that agentic AI could widen digital divides, particularly between those who

are able to leverage AI for knowledge-intensive augmentation and those who only utilize it for basic assistance. There is an even greater divide between users and non-users, especially individuals who lack the skills, resources, or digital literacy required to benefit from agentic AI at all (Uy-Tioco 2019; Wang et al. 2025). Moreover, AI systems often reproduce and even amplify existing social inequalities, as they are trained on data reflecting unequal social structures (Zajko 2022). Such differences emphasize the importance of education, inclusive AI literacy initiatives, and responsible adoption strategies to prevent new forms of technological exclusion (Concepcion et al. 2019).

Finally, the results carry implications for ethical and responsible AI governance. When consumers transfer decision-making or content generation to AI agents, issues related to accountability, transparency, and control become increasingly relevant (Candrian and Scherer 2022). Designers and policymakers must carefully consider how humans can remain informed decision-makers, even when tasks are delegated. Consent mechanisms, explainability features, and clear boundaries of human oversight are essential to preserve user agency, ensure trust, and prevent overreliance or misuse of autonomous systems (Murugesan 2025). At the same time, prior research suggests that acting through AI systems can reduce users' sense of responsibility, as the distance between actions and their consequences increases (Gratch and Fast 2022). Our findings support this concern, showing that users are more willing to delegate low-risk tasks while remaining cautious in more sensitive domains. The tendency to perceive AI agents as human-like can additionally blur responsibility and make it less clear who is accountable for outcomes (Es and Nguyen 2024; Pham and Morin 2026). Together with the broader shift toward cognitive outsourcing through AI systems (Danaher 2018), these patterns highlight the need for governance approaches that actively reinforce human responsibility and transparency in AI-mediated decision-making.

5.3 Limitations and future research

This study is not without limitations. First, the data collection took place in July 2025. Broader public awareness and adoption of agentic AI only emerged more recently through releases such as OpenAI's ChatGPT "agent mode" (August 2025) or Anthropic's Claude browser extension (December 2025). Delegation intentions were therefore measured using hypothetical scenarios, which may not fully reflect actual behavior of agentic AI users. This intention–behavior gap implies that real-life usage decisions may differ once users experience tangible risks, benefits, and trust dynamics. Second, participants selected delegable tasks from a predefined list. Although an "other" option was provided and no additional tasks were suggested, it remains uncertain whether this approach fully captured the diversity and complexity of real-world delegation, especially as agentic AI systems expand their capabilities. This temporal and experiential distance may have increased cognitive abstraction in respondents' evaluations, potentially amplifying optimism or uncertainty in stated delegation intentions.

Another limitation is the reliance on cross-sectional survey data, which restricts the ability to capture the progression of delegation behavior over time. In addition, task delegation was operationalized as a binary choice (delegate vs. not delegate), which may oversimplify a phenomenon that is inherently continuous. In practice, delegation often involves varying degrees of autonomy transfer rather than a complete transfer of decision control. Real-world delegation may be partial, conditional, supervised, or reversible, depending on task characteristics and situational factors. By modeling delegation as a dichotomous intention, the present study does not fully capture this conceptual nuance, which should be addressed in future research designs. Longitudinal studies could examine how delegation preferences evolve as users gain experience and confidence in the use of increasingly autonomous AI. Moreover, this study focused on existing generative AI users, which limits generalizability to non-users or those hesitant about AI-enabled automation. Future research should include non-adopters and vulnerable groups to better understand exclusion risks, hesitation factors, and perceived threats.

Future work, moreover, could complement quantitative results with qualitative approaches such as interviews, digital ethnography, or user workshops to gain deeper insights into how individuals negotiate decisions, agency, and control when interacting with agentic AI. Such research would help illuminate the societal and ethical implications of shifting cognitive responsibilities to autonomous systems.

Finally, although the study focuses on the Philippine context, similar patterns may emerge in other emerging economies with rapidly growing AI adoption, such as India, Brazil, and Indonesia, where large and digitally engaged populations are increasingly integrating AI tools into everyday activities (Liu and Wang 2024). We therefore call for further studies to examine these dynamics across diverse socio-economic and cultural contexts.

Appendix

See Fig. 3, Table 2.

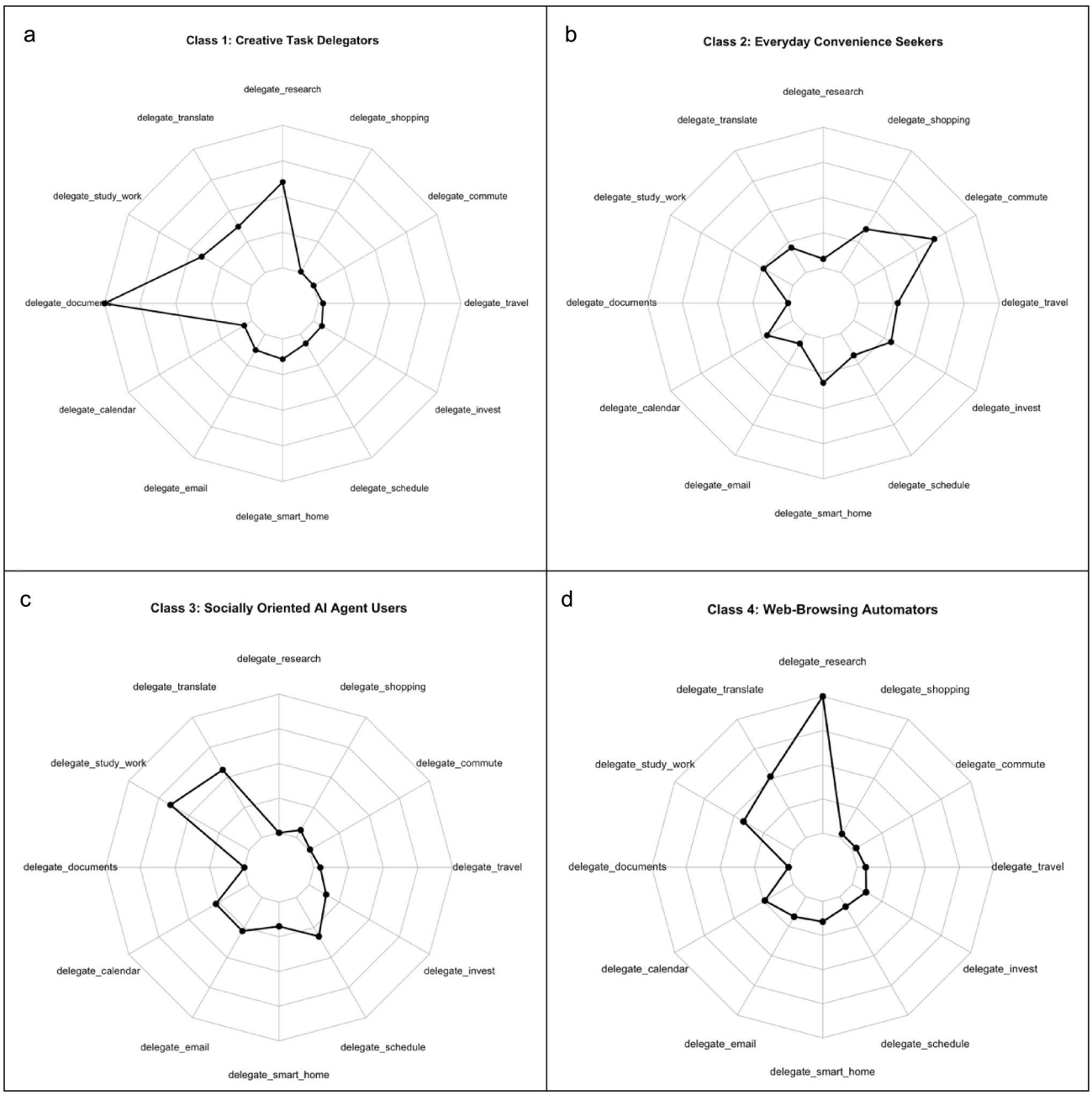


Fig. 3 **a**–**d** Radar charts of task-delegation probabilities

Acknowledgements The author is indebted to two anonymous reviewers for their detailed and constructive feedback, which significantly helped to improve this study.

Author contributions M.H. was responsible for all aspects of the study, including conceptualization, methodology, literature review, data collection, formal analysis, visualization, writing, and approval of the final manuscript.

Funding Open Access funding enabled and organized by Projekt DEAL.

Data availability The data that support the findings of this study are available from the author upon reasonable request.

Declarations

Conflict of interest The authors declare that there are no competing interests.

Open Access This article is licensed under a Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License, which permits use, sharing, adaptation, distribution and reproduction in any medium or format, as long as you give appropriate credit to the original author(s) and the source, provide a link to the Creative Commons licence, and indicate if changes were made. The images or other third party material in this article are included in the article's Creative Commons licence, unless indicated otherwise in a credit line to the material. If material is not included in the article's Creative Commons licence and your intended use is not permitted by statutory regulation or exceeds the permitted use, you will need to obtain permission directly from the copyright holder. To view a copy of this licence, visit http://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/.

References

Acharya DB, Kuppan K, Divya B (2025) Agentic AI: autonomous intelligence for complex goals–a comprehensive survey. IEEE Access 13:18912–18936. https://doi.org/10.1109/ACCESS.2025.3532853

Adam M, Diebel C, Goutier M, Benlian A (2024) Navigating autonomy and control in human-AI delegation: user responses to technology-versus user-invoked task allocation. Decis Support Syst 180:114193. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.dss.2024.114193

Akhtar F, Akhtar S, Laeeq M (2025) Evolution of Robo-advisors: a literature review and future research agenda. Int J Consum Stud. https://doi.org/10.1111/ijcs.70131. (**Portico**)

Akinola M, Martin AE, Phillips KW (2018) To delegate or not to delegate: gender differences in affective associations and behavioral responses to delegation. Acad Manag J 61(4):1467–1491. https://doi.org/10.5465/amj.2016.0662

Bai X, Yang L (2025) Exploring the determinants of AIGC usage intention based on the extended AIDUA model: a multi-group structural equation modeling analysis. Front Psychol 16:1589318. https://doi.org/10.3389/fpsyg.2025.1589318

Bamberg S (2013) Changing environmentally harmful behaviors: a stage model of self-regulated behavioral change. J Environ Psychol 34:151–159. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jenvp.2013.01.002

Bennetts CR, Ludwig E (2025) The desire for AI advice in retirement plans: a latent class analysis. Financ Plan Res J 11(2):1–26. https://doi.org/10.2478/fprj-2025-0007

Borghoff UM, Bottoni P, Pareschi R (2025) Human-artificial interaction in the age of agentic AI: a system-theoretical approach. Front Hum Dyn 7:1579166. https://doi.org/10.3389/fhumd.2025.1579166

Brynjolfsson E, Li D, Raymond L (2025) Generative AI at work. Q J Econ 140(2):889–942. https://doi.org/10.1093/qje/qjae044

Cabrera-Sánchez JP, Villarejo-Ramos ÁF, Liébana-Cabanillas F, Shaikh AA (2021) Identifying relevant segments of AI applications adopters – expanding the UTAUT2's variables. Telemat Inform 58:101529. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.tele.2020.101529

Candrian C, Scherer A (2022) Rise of the machines: delegating decisions to autonomous AI. Comput Hum Behav 134:107308. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chb.2022.107308

Chang H, Liu B, Zhao Y, Li Y, He F (2025) Research on the acceptance of ChatGPT among different college student groups based on latent class analysis. Interact Learn Environ 33(1):22–38. https://doi.org/10.1080/10494820.2024.2331646

Chen M (2023) Trust, understanding, and machine translation: the task of translation and the responsibility of the translator. AI Soc 39(5):2307–2319. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-023-01681-6

Chua AYK, Pal A, Banerjee S (2023) AI-enabled investment advice: will users buy it? Comput Hum Behav 138:107481. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chb.2022.107481

Collins LM, Lanza ST (2013) Latent class and latent transition analysis: with applications in the social, behavioral, and health sciences. John Wiley & Sons

Concepcion RS, Bedruz RAR, Culaba AB, Dadios EP, Pascua AR (2019) The technology adoption and governance of artificial intelligence in the Philippines. In: 2019 IEEE 11th international conference on humanoid, nanotechnology, information technology, communication and control, environment, and management (HNICEM), pp 1–10. https://doi.org/10.1109/HNICEM48295.2019.9072725

Cubric M (2020) Drivers, barriers and social considerations for AI adoption in business and management: a tertiary study. Tech Soc. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.techsoc.2020.101257

Danaher J (2018) Toward an ethics of AI assistants: an initial framework. Philos Technol 31(4):629–653. https://doi.org/10.1007/s13347-018-0317-3

Dang J, Liu L (2025) Agentic and communal motivations underlying human–AI interactions. Asian J Soc Psychol 28(4):e70065. https://doi.org/10.1111/ajsp.70065

Daniilidou A, Antoniadou N (2025) Uncovering hidden profiles: a latent profile and class analysis of personality and demographics in workplace AI acceptance. Int J Hum Comput Interact. https://doi.org/10.1080/10447318.2025.2560520

Datu JAD, Yuen M, Chen G (2018) Exploring determination for long-term goals in a collectivist context: a qualitative study. Curr Psychol 37(1):263–271. https://doi.org/10.1007/s12144-016-9509-0

De Witte NA, Rimando CRD, Vandenborre D, Aseron AMC, Mojica GD, Damian JA, De Witte NAJ, Van Daele T, Schraeyen K (2024) A culturally-sensitive approach to technology acceptance: the process of applying the UTAUT2 model in the Philippines. Procedia Comput Sci 248:14–21. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.procs.2024.10.358

Ding Y, DeSarbo WS, Hanssens DM, Jedidi K, Lynch JG, Lehmann DR (2020) The past, present, and future of measurement and methods in marketing analysis. Mark Lett 31(2–3):175–186. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11002-020-09527-7

Dorostkar E, Ziari K, Najarsadeghi M (2026) Harnessing AI-driven behavioral analytics for sustainable urban mobility: an interdisciplinary approach to policy, planning, and user adaptation. Transp Res Interdiscip Perspect 36:101892. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.trip.2026.101892

Espinoza-Bravo MG, Cabezas-Cabezas R, Perez-Cepeda M, Carvache-Franco O, Carvache-Franco W (2025) AIDUA (artificial intelligence device use and acceptance) model to assess the

acceptance of AI in the learning practices of higher education students. Cogent Educ. https://doi.org/10.1080/2331186X.2025.2560618

Frank DA, Chrysochou P, Mitkidis P, Otterbring T, Ariely D (2024) Navigating uncertainty: exploring consumer acceptance of artificial intelligence under self-threats and high-stakes decisions. Technol Soc 79:102732. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.techsoc.2024.102732

Gerling C, Teubner T, Braesemann F (2026) Who uses general-purpose AI? A typology of ChatGPT early adopters. Electron Mark. https://doi.org/10.1007/s12525-025-00853-0

Gratch J, Fast NJ (2022) The power to harm: AI assistants pave the way to unethical behavior. Curr Opin Psychol 47:101382. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.copsyc.2022.101382

Gursoy D, Chi OH, Lu L, Nunkoo R (2019) Consumers acceptance of artificially intelligent (AI) device use in service delivery. Int J Inf Manag 49:157–169. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ijinfomgt.2019.03.008

Guzman AL, Lewis SC (2019) Artificial intelligence and communication: a human–machine communication research agenda. New Media Soc 22(1):70–86. https://doi.org/10.1177/1461444819858691

Hasselwander M, Lah O (2026) Agentic AI arrives: how Gen Z adopts autonomous AI agents. IEEE Access 14:27083–27090. https://doi.org/10.1109/access.2026.3665348

Hasselwander M, Weiss D (2025) Consumer preferences for super app services: e-commerce, social media, and banking dominate. Eur Res Manag Bus Econ 31(2):100284. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.iedeen.2025.100284

Hasselwander M, Bigotte JF, Antunes AP, Sigua RG (2022) Towards sustainable transport in developing countries: preliminary findings on the demand for mobility-as-a-service (MaaS) in Metro Manila. Transp Res A Policy Pract 155:501–518. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.tra.2021.11.024

Hasselwander M, Sunio V, Lah O, Mogaji E (2026) Toward agentic AI: user acceptance of a deeply personalized AI super assistant (AISA). J Retail Consum Serv 89:104620. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jretconser.2025.104620

Heimberger H, Horvat D, Schultmann F (2024) Exploring the factors driving AI adoption in production: a systematic literature review and future research agenda. Inf Technol Manag. https://doi.org/10.1007/s10799-024-00436-z

Hermann E, Williams GY, Puntoni S (2024) Deploying artificial intelligence in services to AID vulnerable consumers. J Acad Mark Sci 52(5):1431–1451. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11747-023-00986-8

Ismagilova Z, Ploner M (2025) Ain't blaming you: Delegation of financial decisions to humans and algorithms. Comput Hum Behav Artif Hum 4:100147. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chbah.2025.100147

Jo H (2022) Continuance intention to use artificial intelligence personal assistant: Type, gender, and use experience. Heliyon 8(9):e10662. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.heliyon.2022.e10662

Jo H (2025) Interaction, novelty, voice, and discomfort in the use of artificial intelligence voice assistant. Univ Access Inf Soc 1–14:2419–2432. https://doi.org/10.1007/s10209-025-01203-9

Koenig PD (2025) Attitudes toward artificial intelligence: Combining three theoretical perspectives on technology acceptance. AI Soc 40(3):1333–1345. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-024-01987-z

Komiak SYX, Benbasat I (2006) The effects of personalization and familiarity on trust and adoption of recommendation agents1. MIS Q 30(4):941–960. https://doi.org/10.2307/25148760

Kostopoulos G, Gkamas V, Rigou M, Kotsiantis S (2025) Agentic AI in education: State of the art and future directions. IEEE Access 13:177467–177491. https://doi.org/10.1109/access.2025.3620473

Levine S, Beck SW, Mah C, Phalen L, PIttman J (2024) How do students use ChatGPT as a writing support? J Adolesc Adult Lit 68(5):445–457. https://doi.org/10.1002/jaal.1373. (**Portico**)

Liu, Y., & Wang, H. (2024). Who on Earth Is Using Generative AI ? (English). Policy Research working paper. World Bank Group, Washington, D.C. http://documents.worldbank.org/curated/en/099720008192430535

Ma X, Huo Y (2023) Are users willing to embrace ChatGPT? Exploring the factors on the acceptance of chatbots from the perspective of AIDUA framework. Technol Soc 75:102362. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.techsoc.2023.102362

Madan R, Ashok M (2023) AI adoption and diffusion in public administration: A systematic literature review and future research agenda. Gov Inf Q 40(1):101774. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.giq.2022.101774

Mari A, Mandelli A, Algesheimer R (2024) Empathic voice assistants: Enhancing consumer responses in voice commerce. J Bus Res 175:114566. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jbusres.2024.114566

Milewski AE, Lewis SH (1997) Delegating to software agents. Int J Hum-Comput Stud 46(4):485–500. https://doi.org/10.1006/ijhc.1996.0100

Mladenović D, Ismagilova E, Mogaji E, Dwivedi YK (2026) Travel recommendations of tomorrow: generative artificial intelligence and travel planning. J Consum Behav. https://doi.org/10.1002/cb.70126

Murugesan S (2025) The rise of agentic AI: implications, concerns, and the path forward. IEEE Intell Syst 40(2):8–14. https://doi.org/10.1109/MIS.2025.3544940

Ngo V (2025) Humanizing AI for trust: the critical role of social presence in adoption. AI Soc. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-025-02506-4

Noerman T, Riyadi, Yuliaji ES, & Natasha CAM (2025). The impacts of social influence and hedonic motivation on experience and continuance intention of using AI in SMEs' HRM. Cogent Bus Manag, 12(1). https://doi.org/10.1080/23311975.2025.2542422

Norman TJ, Reed C (2010) A logic of delegation. Artif Intell 174(1):51–71. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.artint.2009.10.001

Oh J, Nah S, Yang ZD (2025) How autonomy of artificial intelligence technology and user agency influence AI perceptions and attitudes: applying the theory of Psychological Reactance. J Broadcast Electron Media 69(3):161–182. https://doi.org/10.1080/08838151.2025.2485319

Pathak A, Bansal V (2024) AI as decision aid or delegated agent: the effects of trust dimensions on the adoption of AI digital agents. Comp Hum Behav 2(2):100094. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chbah.2024.100094

Pham TNQ, Morin C (2026) 'Thinking', 'helping', and 'replacing': what personification metaphors reveal about the social integration of generative AI. AI Soc. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-026-02934-w

Philippine Statistics Authority (PSA) (2025). National ICT Household Survey 2024 – Individual statistics. Philippine Statistics Authority. Retrieved February 27, 2026, from https://psa.gov.ph/statistics/nicths/individual

Podsakoff PM, MacKenzie SB, Lee J-Y, Podsakoff NP (2003) Common method biases in behavioral research: a critical review of the literature and recommended remedies. J Appl Psychol 88(5):879–903. https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.88.5.879

Qian Y, Polimetla T, Sanchez TW, Yan X (2025) How do transportation professionals perceive the impacts of AI applications in transportation? A latent class cluster analysis. Transportation. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11116-025-10588-8

Rajaobelina L, Ricard L (2021) Classifying potential users of live chat services and chatbots. J Financ Serv Mark 26(2):81–94. https://doi.org/10.1057/s41264-021-00086-0

Sapkota R, Roumeliotis KI, Karkee M (2026) AI agents vs. agentic AI: a conceptual taxonomy, applications and challenges. Inf Fusion 126:103599. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.inffus.2025.103599

Sengar SS, Hasan AB, Kumar S, Carroll F (2025) Generative artificial intelligence: a systematic review and applications. Multimed Tools Appl 84(21):23661–23700. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11042-024-20016-1

Sengul M, Gimeno J, Dial J (2012) Strategic delegation: a review, theoretical integration, and research agenda. J Manag. https://doi.org/10.1177/0149206311424317

Seyfi S, Kim MJ, Nazifi A, Murdy S, Vo-Thanh T (2025) Understanding tourist barriers and personality influences in embracing generative AI for travel planning and decision-making. Int J Hosp Manag 126:104105. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ijhm.2025.104105

Sharma N, Paço A (2025) AI and emotions: enhancing green intentions through personalized recommendations—a mediated moderation analysis. AI Soc 40(4):2821–2838. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-024-02031-w

Song J, Lin H (2024) Exploring the effect of artificial intelligence intellect on consumer decision delegation: the role of trust, task objectivity, and anthropomorphism. J Consum Behav 23(2):727–747. https://doi.org/10.1002/cb.2234

Stojanov A, Liu Q, Koh JHL (2024) University students' self-reported reliance on ChatGPT for learning: a latent profile analysis. Comput Educ Artif Intell 6(4):100243. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.caeai.2024.100243

Sun Y, Li S, Yu L (2022) The dark sides of AI personal assistant: effects of service failure on user continuance intention. Electron Mark 32(1):17–39. https://doi.org/10.1007/s12525-021-00483-2

Uy-Tioco CS (2019) 'Good enough'access: digital inclusion, social stratification, and the reinforcement of class in the Philippines. Commun Res Pract 5(2):156–171. https://doi.org/10.1080/22041451.2019.1601492

van Es K, Nguyen D (2024) "Your friendly AI assistant": the anthropomorphic self-representations of ChatGPT and its implications for imagining AI. AI Soc 40(5):3591–3603. https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-024-02108-6

Vasiliu V, Yavetz G (2024) Who's afraid of AI? socio-technological perspectives on artificial intelligence in the workforce: an Israeli case study. Aslib J Inf Manag. https://doi.org/10.1108/AJIM-12-2023-0562

Wang C, Boerman SC, Kroon AC, Möller J, de Vreese HC (2025) The artificial intelligence divide: who is the most vulnerable? New Media Soc 27(7):3867–3889. https://doi.org/10.1177/14614448241232345

Wang H, Sun Q, Gu L, Lai K, He L (2022) Diversity in people's reluctance to use medical artificial intelligence: Identifying subgroups through latent profile analysis. Front Artif Intell. https://doi.org/10.3389/frai.2022.1006173

Weller BE, Bowen NK, Faubert SJ (2020) Latent class analysis: a guide to best practice. J Black Psychol 46(4):287–311. https://doi.org/10.1177/0095798420930932

Wu Z, Aw EC, Tan GW, Ki C (2026) The voice of commerce: a systematic review and integrative framework for digital voice assistants. Int J Consum Stud. https://doi.org/10.1111/ijcs.70159. (**Portico.**)

Yin M, Jiang S, Niu X (2024) Can AI really help? The double-edged sword effect of AI assistant on employees' innovation behavior. Comput Hum Behav 150:107987. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chb.2023.107987

Zaidan AA, Zaidan BB (2018) A review on intelligent process for smart home applications based on IoT: coherent taxonomy, motivation, open challenges, and recommendations. Artif Intell Rev 53(1):141–165. https://doi.org/10.1007/s10462-018-9648-9

Zajko M (2022) Artificial intelligence, algorithms, and social inequality: sociological contributions to contemporary debates. Sociol Compass. https://doi.org/10.1111/soc4.12962

Publisher's Note Springer Nature remains neutral with regard to jurisdictional claims in published maps and institutional affiliations.